AI-Assisted Creative Expression: a Case for Automatic Lineart Colorization

Yliess Hati

January 31, 2023

Contents

List of Abbreviations **1**

Abstract **3**

Aknowledgements **5**

I Context **7**

1 Introduction **9**
1.1 Motivations 10
1.2 Problem Statement 10
1.3 Contributions 11
1.4 Concerns 11
1.5 Outline 12

2 Background **13**
2.1 A Brief History of Artificial Intelligence 13
2.1.1 The Early Years 14
2.1.2 The First AI Winter 15
2.1.3 Expert Systems and Symbolic AI 15
2.1.4 The Second AI Winter 15
2.1.4.1 The Indomitable Researchers 15
2.1.5 The Deep Learning Revolution 16
2.1.6 Deep Learning Milestones 17
2.2 Core Principles 18
2.2.1 Perceptron 18
2.2.2 Multi-Layer Perceptron 18
2.2.3 Convolutional Neural Network 18
2.3 Generative Architectures 18
2.3.1 Autoencoders 18
2.3.2 Variational Autoencoders 18
2.3.3 Generative Adversarial Networks 18
2.3.4 Denoising Diffusion Models 18
2.4 Attention is all you Need 18
2.4.1 Multihead Self-Attention 18
2.4.2 Large Language Models 18

3 Methodology **19**
3.1 Implementation 19
3.2 Objective Evaluation 19
3.3 Subjective Evaluation 19
3.4 Reproducibility 19

II Core **21**

4 Contrib I (Find Catchy Explicit Name) **23**
4.1 State of the Art 23
4.2 Method 23
4.3 Setup 23
4.4 Results 23
4.5 Summary 23

5 Contrib II (Find Catchy Explicit Name) **25**
5.1 State of the Art 25
5.2 Method 25
5.3 Setup 25
5.4 Results 25
5.5 Summary 25

6 Contrib III (Find Catchy Explicit Name) **27**
6.1 State of the Art 27
6.2 Method 27
6.3 Setup 27
6.4 Results 27
6.5 Summary 27

7 Contrib IV (Find Catchy Explicit Name) **29**
7.1 State of the Art 29
7.2 Method 29
7.3 Setup 29
7.4 Results 29
7.5 Summary 29

III Reflection **31**

8 Ethical and Societal Impact **33**

9 Conclusion **35**

References **37**

List of Abbreviations

Acronyms

ACT-R Adaptive Control of Thought—Rational

AI Artificial Intelligence

ANN Artificial Neural Network

CNN Convolutional Neural Network

CV Computer Vision

DDM Denoising Diffusion Model

DL Deep Learning

GAN Generative Adversarial Network

GD Gradient Descent

GPU Graphical Processing Unit

LLM Large Language Model

LSTM Long Short-Term Memory

MLP Multi-Layer Perceptron

NN Neural Network

NPU Neural Processing Unit

RLHF Reinforcement Learning from Human Feedback

RNN Recurrent Neural Network

SVM Support Vector Machine

TPU Tensor Processing Unit

VAE Variational Autoencoder

Abstract

Aknowledgements

Part I

Context

Chapter 1

Introduction

Humans possess the ability to perceive and understand the world allowing us to accomplish a wide range of complex tasks through the combination of visual recognition, scene understanding, and communication. The ability to quickly and accurately extract information from a single image is a testament to the complexity and sophistication of the human brain and is often taken for granted. One of the Artificial Intelligence (AI) field's ultimate goals is to empower computers with such human-like abilities, one of them being creativity, being able to produce something original and worthwhile [33].

Computational creativity is the field at the intersection of AI, cognitive psychology, philosophy, and art, which aims at understanding, simulating, replicating, or in some cases enhancing human creativity. One definition of computational creativity [34] is the ability to produce something that is novel and useful, demands that we reject common beliefs, results from intense motivation and persistence, or comes from clarifying a vague problem. Top-down approaches to this definition use a mix of explicit formulations of recipes and randomness such as procedural generation. On the opposite, bottom-up approaches use Artificial Neural Networks (ANNs) to learn patterns and heuristics from large datasets to enable non-linear generation.

We, as a species, are currently witnessing the beginning of a new era where the gap between machines and humans is starting to blur. Current breakthroughs in the field of AI, more specifically in Deep Learning (DL), are giving computers the ability to perceive and understand our world, but also to interact with our environment using natural interactions such as speech and natural language. ANNs, once mocked by the AI community [25], are now trainable using Gradient Descent (GD) [40] thanks to the massive availability of data and the processing power of modern hardware accelerators such as Graphical Processing Units (GPUs), Tensor Processing Units (TPUs), and Neural Processing Units (NPUs).

Neural Networks (NNs), those trainable general function approximators, gave rise to the field of generative NNs. Specialized DL architectures such as Variational Autoencoders (VAEs) [22], Generative Adversarial Networks (GANs) [11], Denoising Diffusion Models (DDMs) [16], and Large Language Models (LLMs) [2, 46] are used to generate artifacts such as text, audio, images, and videos of

unprecedented quality and complexity.

This dissertation aims at exploring how one could train and use generative NN to create AI-powered tools capable of enhancing human creative expression. The task of automatic lineart colorization act as the example case used to illustrate this process throughout the entire thesis.

1.1 Motivations

Lineart colorization is an essential aspect of the work of artists, illustrators, and animators. The task of manually coloring lineart can be time-consuming, repetitive, and exhausting, particularly in the animation industry, where every frame of an animated product must be colored and shaded. This process is typically done using image editing software such as Photoshop [37], Clip Studio PAINT [5], and PaintMan [35]. Automating the colorization process can greatly improve the workflow of these creative professionals and has the potential to lower the barrier for newcomers and amateurs. Such a system was integrated into Clip Studio PAINT [5], demonstrating the growing significance of automatic colorization in the field.

The most common digital illustration process can be broken down into four distinct stages: sketching, inking, coloring, and post-processing. As demonstrated by the work of Kandinsky [20], the colorization process can greatly impact the overall meaning of a piece of art through the introduction of various color schemes, shading, and textures. These elements of the coloring process present significant challenges for the Computer Vision (CV) task of automatic lineart colorization, particularly in comparison to its grayscale counterpart [10, 15, 50]. Without the added semantic information provided by textures and shadows, inferring materials and 3D shapes from black and white linearts is difficult. They can only be deduced from silhouettes.

1.2 Problem Statement

One major challenge of automatic lineart colorization is the availability of qualitative public datasets. Illustrations do not always come with their corresponding lineart. The few datasets available for the task are lacking consistency in the quality of the illustrations, gathering images from different types, mediums and styles. For those reasons, online scrapping and synthetic lineart extraction is the method of choice for many of the contributions in the field [4, 50].

Previous works in automatic lineart colorization are based on the GAN [11] architecture. They can generate unperfect but high-quality illustrations in a quasi realtime setting. They achieve user control and guidance via different means, color hints [4, 8, 29, 36, 43], style transfer [49], tagging [21], and more recently natural language [16]. One common pattern in these methods is the use of a feature extractor such as Illustration2Vec [42] allowing to compensate for the lack of semantic descriptors by injecting its feature vector into the models.

1.3 Contributions

This work focuses on the use of color hints in the form of user strokes as it fits the natural digital artist workflow and does not involve learning and mastering a new skill. While previous works offers improving quality compared to classical CV techniques, they are still subject to noisy training data, artifacts, a lack of variety, and a lack of fidelity in the user intent. In this dissertation we explore the importance of a clean, qualitative and consistent dataset. We investigate how to better capture the user intent via natural artistic controls and how to reflect them into the generated model artifact while preserving or improving its quality. We also look at how the creative process can be transformed into a dynamic iterative workflow where the user collaborates with the machine to refine and carry out variations of his artwork.

Here is a brief enumeration of this thesis's contributions:

- We present a recipe for curating datasets for the task of automatic lineart colorization [12, 13]
- We introduce three generative models:
  - PaintsTorch [12], a double GAN generator that improved generation quality compared to previous work while allowing realtime interaction with the user.
  - StencilTorch [13], an upgrade upon PaintsTorch, shifting the colorization problem to in-painting allowing for human collaboration to emerge as a natural workflow where the input of a first pass becomes the potential input for a second.
  - StablePaint, an exploration of DDM for bringing more variety into the generated outputs allowing for variation exploration and conserving the iterative workflow introduced by StencilTorch for the cost of inference speed.
- We offer an advised reflection on current generative AI ethical and societal impact.

1.4 Concerns

Recent advances in generative AI for text, image, audio, and video synthesis are raising important ethical and societal concerns, especially because of its availability and ease of use. Models such as Stable Diffusion [38] and more recently Chat-GPT [3] are disturbing our common beliefs and relation with copyright, creativity, the distribution of fake information and so on.

One of the main issues with generative AI is the potential for model fabulation. Generative models can create entirely new, synthetic data that is indistinguishable from real data. This can lead to the dissemination of false information and the manipulation of public opinion. Additionally, there are ambiguities surrounding the ownership and copyright of the generated content, as it is unclear who holds the rights to the generated images and videos. Training data is often obtained via online scrapping and thus copyright ownership is not propagated. This is especially true for commercial applications.

Another important concern is the potential for biases and discrimination. These

models are trained on large amounts of data, and if the data is not diverse or representative enough, the model may perpetuate or even amplify existing biases. The Microsoft Tay Twitter bot [48] scandal is an outcome of such a phenomenon. This initially innocent chatbot has been easily turned into a racist bot perpetuating hate speech. The task was made easier because of the inherently biased dataset it was trained on.

In this work, we are committed to addressing and raising awareness for these concerns. The illustrations used for training our models and for our experiments are only used for educational and research purposes. We only provide recipes for reproducibility and do not distribute the dataset nor the weights resulting from model training, only the code. We hope this will not ensure that our work is used ethically and responsibly but limit its potential misuse.

1.5 Outline

The first part of this thesis (chapters 1-3) provides context to the recent advances in generative AI and introduces the CV task of user-guided automatic lineart colorization, its challenges, and our contributions to the field. It then provides additional background, from DL first principles to current architectures used in modern generative NN, and introduces the methodology used throughout the entire document. This part should be accessible to the majority, experts and non-experts, and serve as an introduction to the field.

The second part (chapters 4-7) presents our contributions, some of which have previously been presented in [12, 13]. It introduces into detail our recipe for sourcing and curating consistent and qualitative datasets for automatic lineart colorization, PaintsTorch [12] our first double generator GAN conditioned on user strokes, StencilTorch [13] our in-painting reformulation introducing the use of masks to allow the emergence of iterative workflow and collaboration with the machine, and finally StablePaint, an exploration of the use of DDM models for variations qualitative exploration.

The third and final part (chapters 7-8) offers a detailed reflection on this thesis's contributions and more generally about the field of generative AI ethical and societal impact, identifies the remaining challenges and discusses future work.

The code base for the experiments and contributions is publicly available on GitHub at https://github.com/yliess86.

Chapter 2

Background

This chapter introduces the reader to the field of Deep Learning (DL) from first principles to the current architectures used in modern generative AI. The first section (section 1) presents a brief history of AI to ground this technical dissertation into its historical context. The following sections (sections 2-4) are discussing the first principles of modern DL from the early Perceptron to more modern frameworks such as Large Language Models (LLMs).

Additional snippets of code are included to make this chapter more insightful and valuable for newcomers.

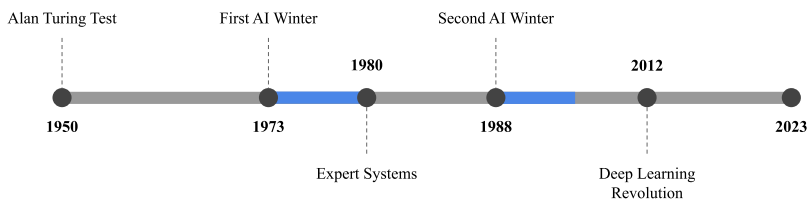

Figure 2.1: A brief timeline of the History of Artificial Intelligence (AI).

2.1 A Brief History of Artificial Intelligence

The history of the field of AI is not a simple linear and straightforward story. The field had its success and failures. The term Artificial Intelligence (AI) has first been introduced in 1956 by John Mc Carthy and Marvin Lee Minsky at a workshop sponsored by Dartmouth College [31], gathering about twenty researchers and intellectuals such as the renowned Claude Shannon (see Fig 2.2). The field's main questions were supposed to be solved in a short period.

However, the reality has been far less rosy. Over the years, AI has gone through several "winters", periods of inactivity and disillusion where funding was cut and research interest dropped (see Fig 2.1). But with the advent of Big Data and

the rise of Deep Learning (DL), AI is once again in the spotlight. The following sections provide a brief overview of the history of AI, from its early days to the current state of the field.

Figure 2.2: Photography of seven of the Dartmouth workshop participants. From left to right: John McCarthy, Marvin Lee Minsky, Nathaniel Rochester, Claude Elwood Shannon, Ray Solomonoff, Trenchard More, and Oliver Gordon Selfridge. Credit: Margaret Minksy

2.1.1 The Early Years

The term Artificial Intelligence (AI) was first used at the 1956 Dartmouth Workshop [31], where John McCarthy proposed the idea of creating a machine that could learn from its mistakes and improve its performance over time. The twenty researchers and intellectuals present worked on topics such as the automatic computer, the use of natural language by machines, neuron nets (Neural Network (NN)), randomness and creativity, and many more. This was a revolutionary idea at the time, and the work done at Dartmouth attracted a great deal of attention and funding.

Much of the early research focused on symbolic AI, which uses symbols and logical operations to represent and manipulate data. Logic programming, production rules, semantic nets and frames, knowledge-based systems, symbolic mathematics, automatons, automated provers, ontologies and other paradigms were at the core of symbolic AI [41]. This approach was based on the early work of Alan Turing and the development of functional languages such as the LISP by McCarthy and al. at MIT [30].

One significant contribution of this period was the Perceptron by Frank Rosenblatt [39], a simplified biomimical model of a single neuron. This artificial neuron fires when the weighted sum of its input is above a predefined threshold. The weights, scalars attributed to the connection edges of the neuron's inputs, are

tuned iteratively and manually given supervised data, inputs with corresponding labels, until good enough classification accuracy is met.

2.1.2 The First AI Winter

The Perceptron was an early example of a connectionist approach, which uses a network of artificial neurons to process data. The Perceptron was met with much enthusiasm but was eventually criticized by Marvin L. Minsky and Seymour Papert [32], who argued that it could not solve a simple XOR problem. The criticisms, as well as other issues, led to a period of disillusion in the field of AI, known as the "First AI Winter". It was a time when AI research lost its momentum and funding was not abundant anymore. This period lasted from 1973 to 1980.

2.1.3 Expert Systems and Symbolic AI

The eighties saw a resurgence of interest in AI. Expert systems [18] were the new hot AI topic. They are made of hierarchical and specialized ensembles of symbolic reasoning models and are used to solve complex problems. Symbolic AI continued to prosper as the dominant approach until the mid-nineties.

During this period, AI was developed as logic-based systems, search-based systems using depth-first-search, and genetic algorithms, requiring complex engineering and domain-specific knowledge from experts to work. It was also the time of the first cognitive architectures [28] inspired by advances in the field of neuroscience such as SOAR [24] and Adaptive Control of Thought—Rational (ACT-R) [1] attempting at simulating the human cognitive process for solving and task automation.

Although the connectionist approaches were not well received by the community at the time, some individuals are known for significant contributions that later would form the basis for modern NN architectures. It was the case for Kunihiko Fukushima and his NeoCognitron [9], or David E. Rumelhart et al. who introduced the most used learning procedure for training Multi-Layer Perceptrons (MLPs), the backpropagation [40].

2.1.4 The Second AI Winter

Unfortunately, this period was also marked by a lack of progress because of the resource limitations of the time. Those algorithms required too much power, data, and investments to work. They were not sufficient to make AI truly successful. The lack of progress in the eighties led to the "Second AI Winter". AI research was largely abandoned during this period. Funding and enthusiasm dwindled. This winter lasted from 1988 to early 2000.

2.1.4.1 The Indomitable Researchers

The second AI winter limited research for NN. However, some indomitable individuals continued their work. During this period, Vladimir Vapnik et al. developed the Support Vector Machine (SVM) [6], a robust non-probabilistic binary linear classifier. The method has the advantage to generalize well even with

small datasets. Sepp Hochreiter et al. introduced the Long Short-Term Memory (LSTM) for Recurrent Neural Networks (RNNs) [17], a complex recurrent cell using gates to route the information flow and simulate long and short-term memory buffers. In 1989, Yann LeCun provided the first practical and industrial demonstration of backpropagation at Bell Labs with a Convolutional Neural Network (CNN) to read handwritten digits [26, 27] later used by the American postal services to sort letters.

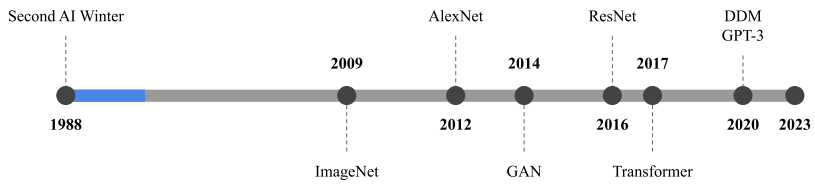

Figure 2.3: A brief timeline of the Deep Learning (DL) Revolution.

2.1.5 The Deep Learning Revolution

The next significant evolutionary step Deep Learning (DL), those deep hierarchical NN, descendants of the connectionist movement, occurred in the early twenty-first century (see Fig 2.3). Computers were now faster and GPUs were developed for high compute parallelization. Data was starting to be abundant thanks to the internet and the rapid rise of search engines and social networks. It is the era of Big Data. NN were competing with SVM. In 2009 Fei-Fei Li and her group launched ImageNet [7], a dataset assembling billions of labeled images.

By 2011, the speed of GPUs had increased significantly, making it possible to train CNNs without layer-by-layer pre-training. The rest of the story includes a succession of deep NN architectures including, AlexNet [23], one of the first award-winning deep CNN, ResNet [14], introducing residual connections, the Generative Adversarial Networks (GANs) [11], a high fidelity and high-resolution generative framework, attention mechanisms with the rise of the Transformer "Attention is all you Need" architecture [46] present in almost all modern DL contributions, and more recently the Denoising Diffusion Model (DDM) [16], the spiritual autoregressive successor of the GAN.

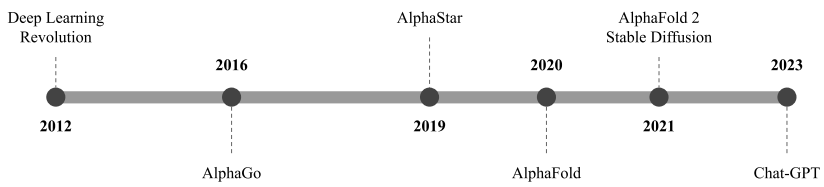

Figure 2.4: A brief timeline of the Deep Learning (DL) Milestones.

2.1.6 Deep Learning Milestones

DL is responsible for many AI milestones in the past decade (see Fig 2.4). These milestones have been essential in advancing the field and enabling its applications within various sectors. One of the first notable milestones was AlphaGo from DeepMind in 2016 [45], where an AI system was able to beat the Korean world champion Lee Se Dol in the game of Go. AlphaGo is an illustration of the compression and pattern recognition capabilities of deep NN in combination with efficient search algorithms.

In 2019, AlphStar [47] from DeepMind also was able to compete and defeat grandmasters in StarCraft the real-time strategy game of Blizzard. This demonstrated the capability of Deep Learning algorithms to achieve beyond human-level performance in real-time and long-term plannification. In 2020, AlphaFold [44] improved the Protein Folding competition by quite a margin, showing that DL could be used to help solve complex problems that have implications for medical research and drug discovery. In 2021 a follow-up model, AlphaFold 2 [19], was presented as an impressive successor of AlphaFold, showcasing further advances in this field.

In 2021, Stable Diffusion [38] from Stability AI was released. This Latent DDM conditioned on text prompts allows to generate images of unprecedented quality and met unprecedented public reach. Finally, Chat-GPT [3] was released in 2023 as a chatbot based on GPT3 [2] and fine-tuned using Reinforcement Learning from Human Feedback (RLHF) for natural question-answering interaction publicly available as a web demo. However, these last two milestones are also responsible for ethical and societal concerns about copyright, creativity, and more. This highlights both the potential of Deep Learning algorithms but also the need for further research around their implications.

2.2 Core Principles

2.2.1 Perceptron

2.2.2 Multi-Layer Perceptron

2.2.3 Convolutional Neural Network

2.3 Generative Architectures

2.3.1 Autoencoders

2.3.2 Variational Autoencoders

2.3.3 Generative Adversarial Networks

2.3.4 Denoising Diffusion Models

2.4 Attention is all you Need

2.4.1 Multihead Self-Attention

2.4.2 Large Language Models

Chapter 3

Methodology

3.1 Implementation

3.2 Objective Evaluation

3.3 Subjective Evaluation

3.4 Reproducibility

Part II

Core

Chapter 4

Contrib I (Find Catchy Explicit Name)

4.1 State of the Art

4.2 Method

4.3 Setup

4.4 Results

4.5 Summary

Chapter 5

Contrib II (Find Catchy Explicit Name)

5.1 State of the Art

5.2 Method

5.3 Setup

5.4 Results

5.5 Summary

Chapter 6

Contrib III (Find Catchy Explicit Name)

6.1 State of the Art

6.2 Method

6.3 Setup

6.4 Results

6.5 Summary

Chapter 7

Contrib IV (Find Catchy Explicit Name)

7.1 State of the Art

7.2 Method

7.3 Setup

7.4 Results

7.5 Summary

Part III

Reflection

Chapter 8

Ethical and Societal Impact

Chapter 9

Conclusion

References

[1] Anderson, J.R. 1992. Automaticity and the ACT theory. *The American Journal of Psychology.* 105, 2 (1992), 165–180. DOI:https://doi.org/10.2307/1423026[1].

[2] Brown, T., Mann, B., Ryder, N., Subbiah, M., Kaplan, J.D., Dhariwal, P., Neelakantan, A., Shyam, P., Sastry, G., Askell, A., et al. 2020. Language models are few-shot learners. *Advances in neural information processing systems.* 33, (2020), 1877–1901.

[3] CHATGPT: Optimizing language models for dialogue: 2023. *https://openai.com/blog/chatgpt/*[2]. Accessed: 2023-01-26.

[4] Ci, Y., Ma, X., Wang, Z., Li, H. and Luo, Z. 2018. User-guided deep anime line art colorization with conditional adversarial networks[3]. *Proceedings of the 26th ACM international conference on multimedia* (New York, NY, USA, 2018), 1536–1544.

[5] Clip studio PAINT: *https://www.clipstudio.net/*[4]. Accessed: 2023-01-26.

[6] Cortes, C. and Vapnik, V. 1995. Support-vector networks. *Machine Learning.* 20, 3 (Sep. 1995), 273–297. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1007/BF00994018[5].

[7] Deng, J., Dong, W., Socher, R., Li, L.-J., Li, K. and Fei-Fei, L. 2009. ImageNet: A large-scale hierarchical image database[6]. *2009 IEEE conference on computer vision and pattern recognition* (2009), 248–255.

[8] Frans, K. 2017. Outline colorization through tandem adversarial networks[7]. *CoRR.* abs/1704.08834, (2017).

[9] Fukushima, K. 1980. Neocognitron: A self-organizing neural network model for a mechanism of pattern recognition unaffected by shift in position. *Biological Cybernetics.* 36, 4 (Apr. 1980), 193–202. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1007/BF00344251[8].

[10] Furusawa, C., Hiroshiba, K., Ogaki, K. and Odagiri, Y. 2017. Comicolorization: Semi-automatic manga colorization[9]. *SIGGRAPH asia 2017 technical briefs* (New York, NY, USA, 2017).

[11] Goodfellow, I., Pouget-Abadie, J., Mirza, M., Xu, B., Warde-Farley, D., Ozair, S., Courville, A. and Bengio, Y. 2014. Generative adversarial nets[10]. *Advances in neural information processing systems* (2014).

[12] Hati, Y., Jouet, G., Rousseaux, F. and Duhart, C. 2019. PaintsTorch: A user-guided anime line art colorization tool with double generator conditional adversarial network[11]. *European conference on visual media production* (New York, NY, USA, 2019).

[13] Hati, Y., Thevenin, V., Nolot, F., Rousseaux, F. and Duhart, C. 2022. StencilTorch: An iterative and user-guided framework for anime lineart colorization. (2022).

[14] He, K., Zhang, X., Ren, S. and Sun, J. 2016. Deep residual learning for image recognition. *Proceedings of the IEEE conference on computer vision and pattern recognition* (2016), 770–778.

[15] Hensman, P. and Aizawa, K. 2017. cGAN-based manga colorization using a single training image[12]. *2017 14th IAPR international conference on document analysis and recognition (ICDAR)* (Los Alamitos, CA, USA, Nov. 2017), 72–77.

[16] Ho, J., Jain, A. and Abbeel, P. 2020. Denoising diffusion probabilistic models. *Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems*. 33, (2020), 6840–6851.

[17] Hochreiter, S. and Schmidhuber, J. 1997. Long Short-Term Memory. *Neural Computation*. 9, 8 (Nov. 1997), 1735–1780. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1162/neco.1997.9.8.1735[13].

[18] Jackson, P. 1998. *Introduction to expert systems*. Addison-Wesley Longman Publishing Co., Inc.

[19] Jumper, J. et al. 2021. Highly accurate protein structure prediction with AlphaFold. *Nature*. 596, 7873 (Aug. 2021), 583–589. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1038/s41586-021-03819-2[14].

[20] Kandinsky, W. and Sadleir, M. 1977. *Concerning the spiritual in art*. Dover Publications.

[21] Kim, H., Jhoo, H.Y., Park, E. and Yoo, S. 2019. Tag2Pix: Line art colorization using text tag with SECat and changing loss[15]. *2019 IEEE/CVF international conference on computer vision (ICCV)* (2019), 9055–9064.

[22] Kingma, D.P. and Welling, M. 2013. Auto-encoding variational bayes. *arXiv preprint arXiv:1312.6114*. (2013).

[23] Krizhevsky, A., Sutskever, I. and Hinton, G.E. 2012. ImageNet classification with deep convolutional neural networks[16]. *Advances in neural information processing systems* (2012).

[24] Laird, J.E. 2019. *The soar cognitive architecture*. The MIT Press.

[25] Le Cun, Y. 2019. *Quand la machine apprend: La révolution des neurones artificiels et de l'apprentissage profond*[17]. Odile Jacob.

[26] LeCun, Y., Boser, B., Denker, J.S., Henderson, D., Howard, R.E., Hubbard, W. and Jackel, L.D. 1989. Backpropagation Applied to Handwritten Zip Code Recognition. *Neural Computation*. 1, 4 (Dec. 1989), 541–551. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1162/neco.1989.1.4.541[18].

[27] Lecun, Y., Bottou, L., Bengio, Y. and Haffner, P. 1998. Gradient-based learning applied to document recognition. *Proceedings of the IEEE*. 86, 11 (1998), 2278–2324. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1109/5.726791[19].

[28] Lieto, A. 2021. *Cognitive design for artificial minds (1st ed.)*[20]. Routledge.

[29] Liu, Y., Qin, Z., Wan, T. and Luo, Z. 2018. Auto-painter: Cartoon image generation from sketch by using conditional wasserstein generative adversarial networks. *Neurocomputing*. 311, (2018), 78–87. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1016/j.neucom.2018.05.045[21].

[30] McCarthy, J. 1978. History of LISP[22]. *History of programming languages*. Association for Computing Machinery. 173–185.

[31] McCarthy, J., Minsky, M.L., Rochester, N. and Shannon, C.E. 2006. A proposal for the dartmouth summer research project on artificial intelligence, august 31, 1955. *AI Magazine*. 27, 4 (2006), 12. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1609/aimag.v27i4.1904[23].

[32] Minsky, M. and Papert, S. 1969. *Perceptrons: An introduction to computational geometry*. MIT Press.

[33] Mumford, M., Medeiros, K. and Partlow, P. 2012. Creative thinking: Processes, strategies, and knowledge. *The Journal of Creative Behavior*. 46, (Mar. 2012). DOI:https://doi.org/10.1002/jocb.003[24].

[34] Newell, A., Shaw, J.C. and Simon, H.A. 1959. *The processes of creative thinking*[25]. RAND Corporation.

[35] Paintman: *http://www.retasstudio.net/products/paintman/*[26]. Accessed: 2023-01-26.

[36] Pelica paint: 2017. *https://petalica-paint.pixiv.dev/index_en.html*[27]. Accessed: 2023-01-26.

[37] Photoshop: *https://www.adobe.com/products/photoshop.html*[28]. Accessed: 2023-01-26.

[38] Rombach, R., Blattmann, A., Lorenz, D., Esser, P. and Ommer, B. 2021. High-resolution image synthesis with latent diffusion models[29].

[39] Rosenblatt, F. 1958. The perceptron: A probabilistic model for information storage and organization in the brain. *Psychological Review*. 65, 6 (1958), 386–408. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1037/h0042519[30].

[40] Rumelhart, D.E., Hinton, G.E. and Williams, R.J. 1986. Learning representations by back-propagating errors. *Nature*. 323, 6088 (Oct. 1986), 533–536. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1038/323533a0[31].

[41] Russell, S.J. and Norvig, P. 2009. *Artificial intelligence: A modern approach*. Pearson.

[42] Saito, M. and Matsui, Y. 2015. Illustration2Vec: A semantic vector representation of illustrations[32]. *SIGGRAPH asia 2015 technical briefs* (New York, NY, USA, 2015), 5:1–5:4.

[43] Sangkloy, P., Lu, J., Fang, C., Yu, F. and Hays, J. 2017. Scribbler: Controlling deep image synthesis with sketch and color[33]. *2017 IEEE conference on computer vision and pattern recognition, CVPR 2017, honolulu, HI, USA, july 21-26, 2017* (2017), 6836–6845.

[44] Senior, A.W. et al. 2020. Improved protein structure prediction using potentials from deep learning. *Nature*. 577, 7792 (Jan. 2020), 706–710. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1038/s41586-019-1923-7[34].

[45] Silver, D. et al. 2016. Mastering the game of go with deep neural networks and tree search. *Nature*. 529, 7587 (Jan. 2016), 484–489. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1038/nature16961[35].

[46] Vaswani, A., Shazeer, N., Parmar, N., Uszkoreit, J., Jones, L., Gomez, A.N., Kaiser, Ł. and Polosukhin, I. 2017. Attention is all you need. *Advances in neural information processing systems*. 30, (2017).

[47] Vinyals, O. et al. 2019. Grandmaster level in StarCraft II using multi-agent reinforcement learning. *Nature*. 575, 7782 (Nov. 2019), 350–354. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1038/s41586-019-1724-z[36].

[48] Wolf, M.J., Miller, K. and Grodzinsky, F.S. 2017. Why we should have seen that coming: Comments on microsoft's tay "experiment," and wider implications. *SIGCAS Comput. Soc.* 47, 3 (Sep. 2017), 54–64. DOI:https://doi.org/10.1145/3144592.3144598[37].

[49] Zhang, L., Ji, Y., Lin, X. and Liu, C. 2017. Style transfer for anime sketches with enhanced residual u-net and auxiliary classifier GAN[38]. *2017 4th IAPR asian conference on pattern recognition (ACPR)* (2017), 506–511.

[50] Zhang, R., Zhu, J.-Y., Isola, P., Geng, X., Lin, A.S., Yu, T. and Efros, A.A. 2017. Real-time user-guided image colorization with learned deep priors. *ACM Trans. Graph.* 36, 4 (Jul. 2017). DOI:https://doi.org/10.1145/3072959.3073703[39].